



KPDS ve YDS – 22 HAFTALIK PROGRAM – PAKET 3
15 Aralık – 21 Aralık 2003

***hakangur* sitesinin KPDS ve YDS üyeleri için
oluşturulmuştur.
Ticari amaçlı olarak kullanılamaz.**

İçerik:

Comparison Clause, Adverbial Clause

Alıştırma 1 - 30 soru

Alıştırma 2 - 35 soru

Sözcük Bilgisi – Konu 5

Sözcük Bilgisi – Konu 6

Yanıtlar

COMPARISON CLAUSE, ADVERBIAL CLAUSE

ALIŞTIRMA 1

1. --- his efforts to save his furniture, Tom could do nothing but watch the blaze engulf all his possessions.

- A) As
- B) Because of
- C) Despite
- D) Unless
- E) Until

2. --- his situation is still serious, he will stay in hospital for a few weeks more.

- A) As
- B) However
- C) Unless
- D) Until
- E) Whether

3. --- the year 2050, we will have used up all our petrol.

- A) By
- B) By the time
- C) Prior
- D) Until
- E) Up to

4. --- all her problems, she never complains.

- A) Apart from
- B) By the time
- C) Even though
- D) However
- E) In spite of

5. --- all the problems she had to solve, she finally managed to finish her thesis.

- A) Apart from
- B) By the time
- C) Even though
- D) However
- E) In spite of

6. --- extremely high does not always mean that it is of high quality.

- A) Being the price of an item
- B) That the price of an item
- C) That the price of an item is
- D) The price of an item
- E) The price of an item is

7. --- I left the office it was already raining.

- A) Afterwards
- B) At the same time
- C) By the time
- D) During
- E) Until

8. --- in 1984, the organisation teaches various languages.

- A) Because of founding
- B) Founded
- C) Founding
- D) It was founded
- E) To be founded

9. --- late I may be, I will not apologise.

- A) Although
- B) Even if
- C) However
- D) No matter
- E) Whatever

10. --- the harsh climatic conditions, hardly anyone is able to live in that part of the world for very long.

- A) In spite of
- B) Owing to
- C) Regardless
- D) Since
- E) Through

11. --- there is life in outer space is of great concern to the scientists.

- A) How
- B) If
- C) Since
- D) What
- E) Whether

12. --- this theory is true is not known.

- A) Although
- B) Because
- C) That
- D) Unless
- E) Whether

13. --- you finish your project on time, you can go out.

- A) Although
- B) Provided
- C) Suppose
- D) What if
- E) Whether

14. --- you promise to driver carefully, you can borrow my car.

- A) Because of
- B) However
- C) Now that
- D) Therefore
- E) Whereas

15. Activists are these in a political movement who insist on taking active steps towards their objectives, --- merely putting forward an action programme.

- A) as far as
- B) in order to
- C) in that
- D) rather than
- E) so long as

16. As far as I am concerned, he must be just about --- notorious lawyer we've ever had to deal with.

- A) more
- B) most
- C) so
- D) such
- E) the most

17. As far as I know, this small town is not --- place to have your holiday at.

- A) best
- B) better
- C) good
- D) the best
- E) well

18. Because he --- sports, he --- a good athlete.

- | | |
|-------------------------------|---------------------------|
| A) has good / can talk to | B) has studied / will do |
| C) is good at / should make | D) is studying / aimed at |
| E) likes / was planning to be | |

19. Because they --- out for a long time, they --- to have dinner in a restaurant.

- | | |
|----------------------------------|------------------------------|
| A) didn't go/ might have decided | B) don't go/ decided |
| C) hadn't gone/ decided | D) haven't gone/ had decided |
| E) won't go/ would have decided | |

20. By the end of the week, we --- to our new flat.

- | | |
|---------------|-----------------------|
| A) are moved | B) are used to moving |
| C) have moved | D) will have moved |
| E) will move | |

21. Clifford Goertz, probably --- famous anthropologist in the world today, has revolutionised the way anthropology is taught on campuses.

- | | |
|-------------|-------------|
| A) a | B) more |
| C) most | D) the more |
| E) the most | |

22. Don't send him to the shops --- it is raining.

- | | |
|---------------|----------------|
| A) because of | B) in spite of |
| C) since | D) that |
| E) which | |

23. Had they apologised for deliberately overcharging me, I --- a complaint with the Consumers' Rights Office.

- | | |
|-------------------------|------------------------|
| A) may not file | B) may not have filed |
| C) was not filing | D) will not have filed |
| E) would not have filed | |

24. He is diplomatically qualified --- to negotiate for a mutual reduction of the armed forces in the region.

- | | |
|-----------|---------------|
| A) also | B) as well as |
| C) enough | D) not only |
| E) though | |

25. He loves his pet dog so much that he treats it as if it --- a close friend of his.

- | | |
|-------------|-------------|
| A) had been | B) has been |
| C) is | D) was |
| E) were | |

26. He passed the exam --- he didn't study.

- | | |
|--------------------|----------------|
| A) although | B) because |
| C) despite | D) in spite of |
| E) notwithstanding | |

27. He treats us as if we --- his slaves.

- A) are
- B) did
- C) had
- D) have been
- E) were

28. I --- in the army before I --- the police.

- A) had been / had joined
- B) had been / joined
- C) had been / joined
- D) have been / joined
- E) was / had joined

29. I haven't seen him --- .

- A) before Tuesday
- B) by the end of the month
- C) for a long time
- D) two days ago
- E) until the examination

30. I was forced to admit that there was a drop in sales towards the end of the year --- he had predicted.

- A) even so
- B) in case
- C) just as
- D) so far as
- E) such as

COMPARISON CLAUSE, ADVERBIAL CLAUSE

ALIŞTIRMA 2

1. If our delegates hadn't shown themselves willing to come to terms, those from other countries --- .

- A) had not, either
- B) have had, too
- C) would be, too
- D) would have, too
- E) wouldn't have, either

2. If you --- your books in the library, we --- now.

- A) didn't leave / would have studied
- B) don't leave / would study
- C) had left / would have studied
- D) had left / would study
- E) hadn't left / would study

3. If you were to hurry up a bit, we --- catch the early bus.

- A) can catch
- B) caught
- C) could catch
- D) have caught
- E) will catch

4. I'll be in the office all day, so you can come and use the fax machine --- you want.

- A) whatever
- B) whenever
- C) wherever
- D) whichever
- E) whoever

5. It is --- for you to say you are going abroad.

- A) enough late
- B) late enough that
- C) late to
- D) late too
- E) too late

6. It was a horrible place to spend a whole summer holiday; I wish I --- in the first place.

- A) couldn't go
- B) couldn't have gone
- C) hadn't gone
- D) haven't gone
- E) won't go

7. It was foolish of me to turn down such an offer; in fact --- I think about it --- I regret it.

- A) as much / so much more
- B) much / as much
- C) the more / as much
- D) the more / the more
- E) the most / so much

8. It's --- difficult to decide who is to blame in --- cases as there are many factors involved.

- A) rather / such
- B) such / these
- C) that / which
- D) therefore / so
- E) too / much

9. Judging by the rate of our waste figures, we --- without fossil fuels by the year 2050.

- A) are going to live
- B) will be living
- C) will have been living
- D) will have lived
- E) will live

10. Judging from the way he spends their money, he --- a fortune.

- A) is supposed to inherit
- B) is to be inherited
- C) must have inherited
- D) will have inherited
- E) will have inherited

11. Last night Susan --- shouting as if somebody --- her.

- A) had woken up / has hit
- B) has woken up / hit
- C) wakes up / hits
- D) woke up / had hit
- E) woke up / would hit

12. Many more people would doubtless have attended the debate --- they had known in advance who the principal speakers were.

- A) after
- B) if only
- C) since
- D) until
- E) while

13. Not --- were at the stadium watching the game this week --- last week.

- A) as many / as
- B) as much / as
- C) as much / than
- D) so many / that
- E) so much / than

14. Thailand has lost half of its forests --- its population has --- doubled in recent decades.

- A) as / more than
- B) because of / much
- C) in case / quite
- D) just as / mostly
- E) so as / soon

15. The battle took place --- for the Chief-General to follow without binoculars.

- A) farther ahead
- B) so far ahead
- C) so far ahead that
- D) so farther ahead
- E) too far ahead

16. The Deputy Prime Minister announced today that it was --- early to propose amendments in the legislation concerning industrial relations.

- A) as soon as
- B) as well as
- C) as yet too
- D) just as
- E) just so

17. The diagram shows it is --- in summer than in winter in the northern hemisphere.

- A) hot
- B) hotter
- C) hottest
- D) so hot
- E) the hottest

18. The food may be good at the Ritz but it's --- expensive.

- A) even so
- B) far too
- C) more than
- D) quite a lot
- E) very much

19. The new secretary we hired is so qualified --- deal with various tasks simultaneously.

- A) as
- B) as to
- C) enough
- D) such as
- E) that

20. The new staff we have recruited are, as far as I am concerned, qualified --- to tackle this sort of crisis.

- A) enough
- B) fairly
- C) so
- D) so much
- E) such

21. The police --- the murder scene after they --- essential proof.

- A) are going to leave / found
- B) have left / found
- C) left / found
- D) were leaving / have found
- E) were leaving / were finding

22. The soup she cooked was ---; we could hardly drink it.

- A) enough salt
- B) enough salty
- C) salt enough
- D) too much salt
- E) too salty

23. The very idea of establishing a literary "canon" has become --- controversial that the people running the Library of America have wisely avoided using the term.

- A) as
- B) more
- C) so
- D) such
- E) too

24. The volcano erupted with --- a great impact that the noise could be heard from miles away.

- A) enough
- B) much
- C) so
- D) such
- E) too

25. The voters will wish they --- him the Member of Parliament, but it will be too late.

- A) didn't elect
- B) elect
- C) hadn't elected
- D) won't elect
- E) wouldn't elect

26. There is nothing --- having to wait in the rain.

- A) annoying enough
- B) as annoyed as
- C) more annoying than
- D) so annoying that
- E) the most annoying

27. They set up a liaison office in East Africa for marketing their goods but now they wish they --- so.

- A) had not done
- B) have not done
- C) never do
- D) would not do
- E) would not have done

28. They're travelling fast --- to arrive before dark.

- A) already
- B) enough
- C) nearly
- D) owing
- E) quite

29. To be promoted, you --- get on well with your colleagues.

- A) can
- B) have to
- C) might
- D) need
- E) should have

30. Under these circumstances he should never have been allowed to take charge of the operation --- he was the most senior of the officers available.

- A) even though
- B) so that
- C) whatever
- D) whenever
- E) whether

31. We --- no problems whatsoever with the dam since it --- forty years ago.

- A) are having / is constructed
- B) had / has been constructed
- C) had had / had been constructed
- D) have had / was constructed
- E) were having / was being constructed

32. What he says is --- what he does.

- A) as different as
- B) different as
- C) different from
- D) different than
- E) more different than

33. Why can't you admit that, --- hard he works, he will never manage to achieve what his elder brother has achieved?

- A) however
- B) though
- C) unless
- D) whatsoever
- E) whenever

34. Why don't you stay in bed and rest until you feel --- ?

- A) bad
- B) best
- C) better
- D) good
- E) worse

35. With so many children to look after, I must find a second job --- make the ends meet.

- A) in order to
- B) moreover
- C) on the contrary
- D) otherwise
- E) so that

SÖZCÜK BİLGİSİ – KONU 5

1. CIVILIZATION, NATIONAL, SOCIETY, STATE

Civilization is advanced state of a society possessing historical and cultural unity. Here we are concerned with the problem of identifying specific societies that, because of their distinctive achievements, are regarded by historians as separate civilizations. Distinctive features of the various civilizations are discussed elsewhere.

The historical perspective used in viewing a civilization, rather than a country, as the significant unit is of relatively recent origin. Since the Middle Ages, most European historians have adopted either a religious or national perspective. The religious viewpoint was predominant among European historians until the 18th century. Regarding the Christian revelation as the most momentous event in history, they viewed all history as either the prelude to or the aftermath of that event. The early historians of Europe had little occasion to study other cultures except as curiosities or as potential areas for missionary activity. The national viewpoint, as distinct from the religious one, developed in the early 16th century, largely on the basis of the political philosophy of the Italian statesman and historian Niccolò Machiavelli, for whom the proper object of historical study was the state. After that period, however, the many historians who chronicled the histories of the national states of Europe and America rarely dealt with societies beyond the realm of European culture except to describe the subjection of those societies by (in their view) the more progressive European powers.

- | | |
|-----------------|-----------------------------|
| 1. distinctive | a) advancing, liberal |
| 2. predominant | b) different |
| 3. revelation | c) disclosure, announcement |
| 4. momentous | d) domain, region |
| 5. aftermath | e) domination, dependence |
| 6. viewpoint | f) important, vital |
| 7. distinct | g) perspective |
| 8. chronicle | h) record, narrate |
| 9. realm | i) reigning, supreme |
| 10. subjection | j) result, consequence |
| 11. progressive | k) unique, distinguishing |

2. ARISTOCRACY, FORMAL, LIBERATE, MAJORITY, PEASANT, POLICY, PUBLIC, REPRESENT, RESIST, RURAL

With Marx and the transition to industrial society, the terminology of "class" changed. Before, the references of stratification were to the aristocracy, the merchants, and the "lower orders". Now the fight between the bourgeoisie and the proletariat dominated political analysis. In current times, with the postulated rise of post-industrial society, the question has been raised whether class has lost its relevance; whether history, in the sense of the Marxist dialectic, has come to an end.

The case for retaining class analysis is strong. There are persistent inequalities of health and educational attainment that have proved highly resistant to social policy in rich countries and that are closely related to class position. A class is defined as a group with common relations to labour or capital markets. The anatomy of class lies in the occupational structure of a country.

Both the market and the working conditions of different classes are typically unequal. In contemporary societies, for example, there are directors of large corporations with salaries of several million per annum, while recipients of public welfare or pensions receive less than £5,000. The children of these parents are more likely to attend different schools, gain unequal qualifications, have contrasted occupational fortunes, have very different housing conditions, have systematically unequal access to marrying partners of uncommon beauty or wealth, and unequal chances of actual physical survival.

However, it is often not noticed that, historically, class was a liberating force in the lives of individuals. Class is not a formally hereditary principle; it permits social mobility between generations.

A rough estimate is that a correlation between parental and filial class of about 0.35 has been typical of modern industrial societies, where 0 would indicate a totally flexible relation between the generations and 1 would represent a rigid caste society. Class has been emancipating in that it does not legally or religiously require a person to enter any particular profession or trade. Self-recruitment has also been the order of the day for many professions, from doctors to dockers, and restriction has been widespread.

At the end of the 19th century, countries like Britain or Belgium were almost wholly proletarian consisting greatly of semi-skilled and unskilled factory and other workers. Other countries such as the United States, USSR, France, or Poland were dominantly agrarian with a majority population of farmers, peasants, or rural workers.

- | | |
|-------------------|-----------------------------|
| 1. transition | a) arrangement in layers |
| 2. stratification | b) assume, suppose |
| 3. postulate | c) being portable |
| 4. relevance | d) connection, significance |
| 5. retain | e) general, extensive |
| 6. recipient | f) hard, strict |
| 7. fortune | g) keep, maintain |
| 8. mobility | h) receiver, beneficiary |
| 9. rigid | i) rural, rustic |
| 10. widespread | j) shift, transformation |
| 11. agrarian | k) wealth |

3. ADMINISTER, AUTHORITY, CAMPAIGN, CENTRE, ELECT, GOVERN, POLICY

Political Science is a academic discipline, the focus of which is the systematic study of government in its broadest sense. Political science is usually viewed as one of the social sciences, which also include anthropology, economics, history, psychology, and sociology. Its relationship to these disciplines can be seen from two perspectives. Some say that political science occupies a central position because the human and social concerns of the other social sciences must take place within—and be affected by—the political beliefs, practices, and authority that exist everywhere. The opposite view is that political science is the “handmaiden” of the other social sciences because it depends on them for its concepts, methods, and understandings.

Today most published research and formal study in political science deals primarily with tangible topics such as political campaigns and elections, the legislative process, executive power, administrative regulations, tax and welfare policies, international relations, comparative politics, judicial decision making, and the actions and effects of groups involved in business, labour, agriculture, religion, ethnic cultures, the military, and the media.

- | | |
|-------------|-----------------------------|
| 1) sense | a) business |
| 2) concern | b) discriminating, critical |
| 3) tangible | c) material, obvious |
| 4) judicial | d) meaning |

4. ADMINISTER, AUTHORITY, BALLOT, CANDIDATE, ELECT, ELECTORATE, GOVERN, MAJORITY, MINISTER, NOMINATE, REFORM, REPRESENT, STAND

Election is a procedure by which the members of an organization or a governmental jurisdiction, such as a state or nation, select a person or people to hold offices of authority. An election may also register choices between alternate courses of action, and it may be conducted by ballot, by a show of hands, or by oral voting. In democracies, elections usually select executive, legislative, administrative, and some judicial officials. Those who participate by voting are known collectively as the electorate.

Before officials are elected, they are usually nominated as candidates from among all the individuals who aspire to a particular office. In Great Britain, a person may be nominated for a position in the House of Commons by presenting a petition bearing the signatures of as few as ten qualified voters, although the person stands little chance of election until he or she is adopted by a local major party organization. In the United States, aspirants have been nominated by caucus, convention, and primary elections. Candidates for president and vice-president are selected by national conventions.

By participating in general elections, voters determine which of the nominated candidates shall hold office. Such elections are called direct elections if the electorate makes this ultimate choice; they are called indirect elections if the electorate chooses instead a group of representatives who then make the final selection. Thus, in the United States, the election of a member of Congress by his or her constituency is direct, as is the election of a member of the House of Commons in England. Technically the choosing of the American president by an electoral college is a form of indirect election, but since electors in each state vote for the party candidate with the most popular votes in that state, the choice of the electoral college almost always corresponds with the national popular vote. On the other hand, the selection of the British prime minister by the majority party in parliament is a true indirect election. The American tradition favours direct election and is based on the assumption that officials so elected, and subject to re-election, are more responsive to the will of the electorate than are those chosen indirectly.

Elections have not always been used to achieve democratic results. In some countries, in some states of the United States, and in some private organizations, the electorate has often in practice been restricted to the membership of one or more groups or parties. In some general elections, the choice before voters has been a positive or a negative vote for a single candidate. Such problems are often the target of electoral reform.

- | | |
|-----------------|--------------------------|
| 1) register | a) competitor, candidate |
| 2) course | b) desire |
| 3) aspire | c) desire, purpose |
| 4) bear | d) final, decisive |
| 5) aspirant | e) limit, bound |
| 6) ultimate | f) manifest, demonstrate |
| 7) constituency | g) passage, process |
| 8) will | h) sustain, carry on |
| 9) restrict | i) target group |

SÖZCÜK BİLGİSİ – KONU 6

1. ARREST, BURGLAR, CASUALTY, COMMIT, CONSTABLE, EVIDENCE, MILITARY, ORDER, PATROL, PEACE, PRINCIPLE, PROCEEDINGS, RAMPANT, RESPONSIBLE, ROB

The agency of a community responsible for maintaining public order and preventing and detecting crime, modern policing began in the 19th century, but law enforcement mechanisms of certain kinds have existed for much longer.

The first policing activities were undertaken by military bodies such as the Praetorian guard in ancient Rome, whose principal role was the maintenance of order—crimes were investigated and prosecuted by private citizens. In more stable medieval societies, policing remained the responsibility of feudal overlords. In England each nobleman policed his individual estate, subject to national laws that were mostly concerned with the protection of the king. Each nobleman appointed a constable, whose duties included keeping the peace and arresting and guarding criminals.

In the 17th century the City of London started to pay watchmen to guard the streets at night. They were usually elderly men who were otherwise unemployable, and for the most part inefficient. In the 18th century they were the only policing body in the capital, together with the Bow Street Runners, an early form of police officers who were nicknamed "Robin Redbreasts" because of the red waistcoats they wore and who had some success against the rampant highway robbery of the 18th century. The force was successful thanks to its good organization and discipline, although its civility was more in evidence in affluent areas of the capital than in working-class areas. Other countries were impressed by the success of the British police model, and nations throughout the world adopted police systems on the same principle.

British police officers are not merely employees; they have individual status as constables, and their powers stem chiefly from that. Partly for this reason, a disciplinary offence alleged against a police officer must be proved beyond reasonable doubt, in the same way as a criminal offence—most disciplinary proceedings require less stringent proof. British police activity in crime prevention takes the form of patrolling, and assisting the public in crime prevention. When a crime has been committed, police officers attempt to apprehend the perpetrator. This is not always possible, of course, and in addition many crimes cannot be fully investigated because resources are not unlimited. Investigation tends to achieve a high success rate when a particular type of criminal activity is targeted (for example, house burglary in an area); or in the case of extremely serious crimes, investigations of which have all necessary resources devoted to them and tend to receive readier cooperation from the public.

Uniquely, British police officers are usually unarmed. The police must avoid the use of firearms whenever possible: their use is carefully examined, and in the event of casualties from police fire a thorough report is made. Guns are rarely fired by police officers.

Police officers generally only have jurisdiction in their own country, and often (though not in Britain) in their own part of the territory. Many countries cooperate through the International Criminal Police Organization (Interpol), with headquarters in Paris. Interpol does not itself conduct examinations, but acts as a liaison centre for national police and as a records resource.

- | | |
|----------------|-------------------------|
| 1. enforcement | a) affair, relationship |
| 2. principal | b) area, region |
| 3. prosecute | c) assign, nominate |
| 4. stable | d) complete, total |
| 5. appoint | e) criminal |
| 6. affluent | f) direct, guide |
| 7. stringent | g) file suit, sue |
| 8. perpetrator | h) fixed, permanent |
| 9. thorough | i) main, chief |
| 10. territory | j) requirement by law |
| 11. conduct | k) rich, wealthy |
| 12. liaison | l) strict, convicting |

2. ACT, ALLOW, CASE, CELL, CHARGE, CLEAR, CONFINED, CONVICT, CRIME, DETENTION, DETER, DISCHARGE, ENFORCE, EXECUTE, GUARD, GUILT, ILLEGAL, IMPRISON, INNOCENT, JURISDICTION, JUSTICE, LAW, LOSE, MAINTAIN, PENALTY, PETTY, PRISON, PROSECUTE, SENTENCE, SMUGGLE

Prison is an institution for the confinement of people convicted of criminal **offences**. Secure places for the detention of people awaiting trial and for people who are considered insane have been built in most societies, but the confinement of **convicts** as a punishment for a crime is relatively new. Until modern times, penalties for crime were generally physical, from incarceration in the stocks (a form of public manacle in which criminals were exhibited) to execution. Imprisonment for life was occasionally used against people convicted of crimes against the state, as a **commutation** of the death sentence, and they were kept in such places as the Tower of London, or the Bastille in Paris. Such people were of high rank in society, and their punishment was difficult to distinguish from the political incarceration then common, as their crimes often consisted of being on the losing side in a power struggle.

In 16th-century England, prisons were used to house vagrants and petty offenders. Then, England and other European countries—Italy, Germany, and the Netherlands, for example—began imprisoning debtors and minor criminals, especially **delinquents**. An increasing **savagery** in the criminal law of England, with death the penalty for many offences, led in practice to the commutation of many sentences, and a considerable prison population. The early prisons were dark, overcrowded, and filthy. Debtors' prisons were somewhat different, as the debtor might live there with his or her family, who were free to come and go in order to maintain what was almost a household in the prisoner's quarters. Imprisonment for debt was abolished in the 19th century after the novelist Charles Dickens exposed the **iniquity** of a system that imprisoned a man for debt without allowing him the freedom to discharge the debt.

Today, the governor of each prison is in charge of minor disciplinary matters. More serious disciplinary issues and **grievances** voiced by prisoners go before a Board of Visitors, which should hear cases in a judicial manner, although there are **provisions** to stop prisoners using the hearing to take up time or cause difficulties for the prison authorities, rather than for the proper purpose of determining guilt or innocence. The Board may deduct periods of time from a prisoner's remission (the time taken off the sentence for good behaviour) if it finds a charge made out. Prisoners are occasionally prosecuted in the courts if their activities in prison amount to serious crime. The Board of Visitors also acts as a supervisory body that should oversee the proper running of the prison. It is comprised of lay volunteers.

Prisons cannot be run on an entirely **coercive** basis and rely to some extent on the cooperation of prisoners. This depends on the relationship between staff and prisoners, and even in well-run prisons the staff do not enforce all regulations to the letter. It is believed that illegal alcohol, smuggled in or brewed on the premises, is

widespread, and trafficking in drugs is not uncommon. This process can go to extremes: staff in one British prison guarding terrorist prisoners were found to be regularly running errands outside the prison for their charges; the prisoners' domination of the relationship made it easy for them to conceal firearms and other equipment, which they used in a subsequent attempted escape in 1994.

Conditions are often physically unpleasant in prisons. Despite a plan to introduce sanitation into all prison cells, "slopping out"—the use of a bucket as a lavatory—is still used in much of the system. A large number of mentally disturbed people are in prison. Some are not satisfactorily dealt with by the criminal justice system and are imprisoned because their condition is not properly comprehended by the sentencing court.

Reform plans are aimed at ending slopping out and reducing overcrowding. There is the intention to move towards "community prisons" where prisoners are kept near to their homes, with visiting access improved. This is partly in the hope of producing a less disaffected prison population, and partly a recognition that prison usually imposes a penalty on the innocent family of the prisoner.

Prison policy was driven for much of the 20th century by a hope that the staff and the environment would rehabilitate prisoners and fit them for a more productive life on release. In the 1970s a series of studies showed that this aim was not being achieved, and it became clear that staff were disillusioned with the concept. Deterring crime is another function claimed for prisons, but for prisoners themselves it seems to be of little effect.

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|-------------------|----------------------------------|
| 1. offence | a) admittance, right of entry |
| 2. convict | b) antagonistic, indifferent |
| 3. commutation | c) complaint, protest |
| 4. delinquent | d) criminal |
| 5. savagery | e) evil, wrong |
| 6. iniquity | f) freedom, liberation |
| 7. grievance | g) guilt |
| 8. provision | h) hide, cover |
| 9. coercive | i) identification, understanding |
| 10. conceal | j) juvenile offender |
| 11. sanitation | k) lessening |
| 12. access | l) prevention, caution |
| 13. recognition | m) terms, conditions |
| 14. release | n) unkindness, cruelty |
| 15. disillusioned | o) using force |

3. ACCUSATION, COMMISSION, EXILE, FINE, PUNISH, RELIEVE, VOLUNTARY

Crime is commission of an act or act of omission that violates the law and is punishable by the state. Crimes are considered injurious to society or the community, as distinguished from torts and breach of contract.

Criminal intent involves an intellectual apprehension of factual elements of the act or acts commanded or enjoined by the law. It is usually inferred from the apparently voluntary commission of an overt act. Criminal liability is relieved in the case of insanity. Punishments may include death, imprisonment, exile, fines, forfeiture of property, removal from public office, and disqualification from holding such office. Unless the act of which a defendant is accused is expressly defined by statute or common law as a crime, no indictment or conviction for the commission of such an act can be legally sustained.

English law formerly distinguished between a felony and a misdemeanour, but this distinction was abolished in 1967, and the significant practical difference now rests on the type of trial applicable for the offence. Crimes can be divided into the most serious, which are triable only on indictment (before a jury), the least serious, which are triable summarily (before magistrates), and those triable either way (before either jury or magistrates).

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|-----------------|--------------------------|
| 1) violate | a) break, rupture |
| 2) breach | b) command, appoint |
| 3) enjoin | c) disturb |
| 4) overt | d) fault, crime, mistake |
| 5) statute | e) formal charge |
| 6) indictment | f) law |
| 7) felony | g) obvious, apparent |
| 8) misdemeanour | h) serious crime |

4. AMMUNITION, ARM, ARMAMENT, ARMOUR, ARMY, ARTILLERY, BATTLE, CAVALRY, COMBAT, CONFLICT, CONSTRUCT, DEFEND, FACE, FIELD, FIGHT, GATHER, NAVY, PRECEDENT, PROTECT, RECRUIT, SIEGE, SOLDIER, TROOP, WAR, WITNESS

Military Technology is technology applied to warfare and the development of **weapons** and weapons systems. Its effect on war-making and military strategy has been greatest in the 20th century, the ultimate example being nuclear weapons. Although **aggression** and violence were inherent characteristics of early hunter-gatherer societies, organized large-scale warfare is a product of civilization. Walls, moats, and towers—the earliest known, at Jericho, dating back to 7000 BC—were built to protect the new, organized city-states.

The ancient Egyptians used bows and arrows 5,000 years ago to fight the Persians, who were armed only with spears and sling-shots. The technology of the wheel, as applied to the horse-drawn chariot, which had **evolved** from the Sumerian war-wagon, increased the **offensive** mobility of soldiers. Missile power was **augmented** by the development of the powerful composite bow, made from bone, sinew, and wood. Bronze was used to make armour for charioteers and beaten copper was made into helmets which often covered the entire head.

Technology and strategy were now interlinked. Powerful imperial armies, such as the Egyptian and Hittite, were equipped by skilled and specialized industries producing high-quality armaments. By 1000 BC iron weapons were widely used around the Mediterranean littoral. Weapons' design stabilized, although **marked** improvements were made in siege engines, and cavalry replaced chariots.

Despite the sophistication of its war machine, the Hellenistic world was ultimately absorbed by Rome, the basis of whose power was the Roman Army—professionally recruited, organized, administered, and supplied—a rare example of a highly organized and effective military machine. Forming the core of the army was the **veteran** professional centurions; the Roman Legion, comprised of heavy armoured infantry with light cavalry and light artillery (mainly catapults for hurling rocks at enemy lines and **fortifications**), proved more flexible than the phalanx. An early imperial legion of the 1st century numbered over 5,000 men with 50 catapults, and fought intense close-quarter battles with extreme **ferocity**.

The Byzantine Army was composed of heavy, chain-mailed, stirrured cavalry armed with lance, bow, and sword, similarly armed light cavalry, and infantry composed predominantly of archers and javelin throwers. **Elaborate** fortifications were constructed. Constantinople was defended by a moat and triple walls, while a front-line system of 300 fortresses and towers protected the Empire.

With their power based on the new military technology, the **extant** European empires dominated the world until the 20th century. By the late 17th century the introduction of mobile artillery, the musket and bayonet, and superior ammunition, had further improved the close-combat firepower of European armies. During the 18th and early 19th centuries the dynamic nation-states of Europe and their military leaders used developed military technology on a massive **scale** wherever their geopolitical and economic interests **clashed**. Explosives technology, firearms, and artillery were continually being developed to produce more destructive explosives, repeating rifles,

machine-guns, other rapid-fire weapons, and **robust** breech-loading artillery. The tank was first used in World War I, as was the land-mine. Deadly chemicals such as Agent Orange were used to **defoliate** large areas of Vietnam in the Vietnam War, one of the most protacted conflicts of the 20th century. Steam locomotives were a **vital** factor in the strategic movement of troops and supplies during the Crimean War and the American Civil War. Railways proved equally vital in World War I, both in initial vast troop mobilizations and in supplying the various fronts. VHF (very high frequency) radios and more powerful long-range equipment **enhanced** the command and control of armies, navies, and air fleets. During World War II an unprecedented level of research and development (R & D) was carried out on weapons systems, leading to greater government spending and political control. Large-scale projects during the Cold War were virtually geared to government operational requirements and contracts and involved thousands of scientists and engineers. Conventional (non-nuclear) missiles—light, rocket-powered projectiles with sophisticated internal guidance systems—represent the limits of military technological effort witnessed in recent **conflicts**.

Set in contrast with the remote-control aspects of high-technology weaponry is the existence of 100 million **uncharted** land-mines throughout the world, left over from conflicts in Afghanistan, Bosnia, Iraq, and South East Asia. An estimated 800 people a month are **maimed** by mines, which kill ten times as many civilians as soldiers; modern plastic mines can escape discovery by mine detectors and improved methods of mine detection are technological challenges faced by British and other units conducting mine-clearing operations in these countries.

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|------------------|--------------------------------|
| 1) weapon | a) arms, gun |
| 2) aggression | b) assault, attack |
| 3) offend | c) battle, fight, disagreement |
| 4) aggressive | d) brutality, barbarity |
| 5) augment | e) castle, citadel |
| 6) marked | f) collision, quarrel |
| 7) veteran | g) damage, injure |
| 8) fortification | h) decay |
| 9) ferocity | i) detailed, complicated |
| 10) elaborate | j) enlarge, grow |
| 11) extant | k) insult, irritate |
| 12) scale | l) make better |
| 13) clash | m) militant, warlike |
| 14) robust | n) necessary, critical |
| 15) defoliate | o) not outlined, unmapped |
| 16) vital | p) noticeable, obvious |
| 17) enhance | q) old soldier, experienced |
| 18) conflict | r) range |
| 19) uncharted | s) still existing |
| 20) maim | t) vigorous, strong |

5. ASSAULT, ATTACK, CONFRONT, CONQUER, DESERT, INVADE, PERMIT, REGIMENT, RETREAT, STORM, SUICIDE, SURRENDER, TABOO, TREATY, VICTORY, WARFARE

Warfare is the use of armed force by states or other organized groups to impose their will on **opponents**. Organized military forces developed in ancient times when the armies of ancient Assyria and Persia began to deploy spear-wielding regular infantry and cavalry to smash their enemies. Subsequently the Greeks deployed heavily armoured militia (or hoplites) in squares or phalanxes for shock action, using bows and arrows, spears and swords. These were **impregnable** in frontal assaults, but were difficult to manoeuvre. Alexander the Great welded phalanxes of heavy and light infantry and cavalry into a powerful **assault** force which destroyed the Persian army in 333 BC.

By 1600 the rulers of the newly emerging nation-states of Europe were hiring mercenaries on short-term contracts to man their armies. This method of **recruitment** inhibited long-drawn-out battles—such soldiers had little motivation or loyalty, and when the **ruler** ran out of money to pay them the mercenaries tended to **desert** in large numbers.

At the end of the 18th century the French revolutionary armies proved to be much more dynamic and **innovative** in their tactics than any of their immediate predecessors. Napoleon Bonaparte transformed the revolutionary forces into an aggressive and **conquering** army in the late 1790s and early 1800s. He further divided his armies into corps (two divisions of about 7,000 men each), which were virtually self-contained units, with their own cavalry, artillery, and infantry divided in turn into brigades, **regiments**, and battalions. Each corps was capable of holding its own against an enemy army until other corps arrived on the battlefield to assist them. Rapid deployment and tactical mobility were the keys to Napoleon's string of **victories** over Prussia, Austria and Russia in the Napoleonic Wars down to 1812.

All the belligerents in World War I planned to take the offensive at the **outset**, using the vastly improved railway systems of Europe to convey their mass conscript armies rapidly to the front. The German Schlieffen plan was the most ambitious, seeking to destroy the French armies by a rapid offensive through Belgium and northern France to envelop the French. However, as it approached Paris in late August and early September 1914, the German army was suffering from severe **exhaustion** as a result of its long march from Belgium and from an increasing shortage of supplies. (The **retreating** French and Belgians had destroyed their railways behind them.) The French rallied and counter-**attacked** the Germans on September 6 in the First Battle of the Marne and forced them to retreat to the Aisne. Both sides began to dig entrenchments, and eventually a continuous parallel line of defensive works stretched from the North Sea to Switzerland. Thereafter, until 1918, despite **suicidal** offensives by both sides, these **trench** lines could not be **penetrated**. In March 1918, the German army launched an offensive against the British army using assault or **storm** troops to infiltrate the Allied lines before the main wave of infantry **descended**. This technique achieved initial successes: the British were driven back towards the English Channel ports and the French towards Amiens, but in August the tide turned as the Allies counter-attacked using tanks, aeroplanes, and infantry in coordinated assaults to push the Germans back to their **frontier**.

With the end of the war on November 11, 1918, the French concentrated on preparing for a long defensive war after 1929, when they began to construct the Maginot Line— a network of fortifications and entrenchments running from Luxembourg to the Swiss border which, they believed, would prove impregnable if Germany **invaded** France. World War II, which broke out in September 1939, became increasingly a war of competing technologies. Germany **surrendered** unconditionally in May 1945 after German armies had been totally defeated by the Western Allies and the Russians. The Japanese surrendered on August 15, 1945 after Hiroshima and Nagasaki had been totally destroyed by nuclear weapons—an **awesome** example of the superiority of Western technology.

In retrospect it may have been **salutary**—it was certainly **significant**—that the new atomic weapons were actually used in the closing stages of the war, for this gave the world a practical example of the destructive power of nuclear warfare, small though they were by the standards of later technology, without breaking the **taboo** against such use which has so far characterized the post-war era.

If nuclear weapons have never been used since 1945, theorizing about their significance and building them into politico-military strategies has proceeded constantly. One view was that the smaller nuclear weapons becoming available might **permit** controlled uses of nuclear weapons in “limited” nuclear wars that need not necessarily **escalate** into all-out **mutual** destruction. The North Atlantic **Treaty** Organization built such weapons into its strategy of flexible response in the hope that it would make the stabilizing **deterrent** threats of nuclear war more **credible**. Soviet strategists never **conceded** that nuclear weapons were unusable.

While the superpowers and their nuclear allies, Britain, China, and France, were thus attempting to avoid nuclear war, warfare of a more familiar kind continued on a large scale in the post-1945 era. Countries outside the confrontation between the American and Soviet-led blocs, such as Israel and Arab states, and India and Pakistan, fought several large-scale, so-called **conventional** wars involving big armoured and aerial forces.

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|------------------|-------------------------------|
| 1) opponent | a) admit, acknowledge |
| 2) impregnable | b) attack, combat |
| 3) assault | c) beginning |
| 4) recruitment | d) believable, trustworthy |
| 5) ruler | e) border, boundary |
| 6) innovative | f) creative, original |
| 7) outset | g) customary, traditional |
| 8) exhaustion | h) ditch, dike |
| 9) trench | i) enter |
| 10) penetrate | j) entrance into service |
| 11) descend | k) good, advantageous |
| 12) frontier | l) grow, increase |
| 13) awesome | m) important, notable |
| 14) salutary | n) impressive, striking |
| 15) significant | o) move downward, settle |
| 16) escalate | p) obstacle, hindrance |
| 17) mutual | q) one who governs |
| 18) deterrent | r) rival, competitor |
| 19) credible | s) shared, common, collective |
| 20) concede | t) unbeatable |
| 21) conventional | u) weakness, fatigue |